

and the International Commission of Jurists to send delegations in 1974; these visits added to the volume of reports that had resulted from visits by Amnesty International and other NGOs in the weeks and months following the coup. Although the Inter-American Commission on Human Rights was not allowed additional on-site investigations, it produced critical reports in 1976 and 1977 based on information received and interviews with exiles.⁹⁵

Determined to accomplish its mission of eradicating the left at any cost, the dictatorship normally ignored or responded dismissively to international pressures, attributing them to an anti-Chilean campaign by exiled traitors in league with international communism. At every opportunity, it claimed the moral high ground. In November 1974, for example, when it offered exile to political prisoners in order to reduce the prison population, a regime spokesman attributed the move to "humanitarian sentiments."⁹⁶ It routinely denied the existence of serious human rights problems, attributing any irregularities to the state of war against Marxism. The regime sometimes reacted defiantly to specific reports of human rights violations; an ad in the *Washington Post*, for example, alleged that the second negative report by the International Commission of Jurists in 1974 "demonstrates [the organization's] relationship with the Soviet Union and its allies in pursuance of identical objectives."⁹⁷ When the government granted permission for human rights investigations within Chile, usually after considerable stalling, it limited access, intimidated potential witnesses, moved prisoners, and closed known detention sites to minimize damage.

For domestic consumption, the regime portrayed international human rights advocacy as illicit intervention in Chile's internal affairs and as attacks on national sovereignty. In January 1978, following the UN General Assembly's fourth annual condemnation, Pinochet held a plebiscite on the following proposition: "In the face of international aggression unleashed against our country, I support President Pinochet in his defense of the dignity of Chile and I reaffirm the legitimacy of the government of the Republic to lead with sovereignty the process of the country's institutionalization." The yes box was a Chilean flag; the no was a black flag. In a vote without debate, opposition, or an electoral registry (it had been burned), the yes won with 75 percent support.⁹⁸

Pinochet's defiance of international pressures rested on solid foundations. He counted on the efficacy of the DINA to keep the ongoing repression secret so that charges of human rights violations could not be conclusively proven. He also counted on the lucrative opportunities for trade and investment that the Chicago Boys' model offered to developed capitalist countries to blunt their criticism of his human rights policies and avoid the inconven-

ience of diplomatic isolation. Despite a steady stream of negative reports and resolutions by both intergovernmental agencies and NGOs, most Western governments maintained correct diplomatic relations and supplied needed capital directly or through multinational agencies. The unflagging economic and diplomatic support of Nixon and his successor, Gerald Ford, who retained Henry Kissinger as secretary of state, helped buffer the regime against its critics, even as the Ford administration gently pressured Pinochet to clean up his government's image if not its substance.

The dictatorship also counted on the shifting political climate in Latin America, and hence in the OAS, to weather the international condemnation. From the early 1970s to the mid-1980s, the number of repressive governments grew dramatically. As a result of the decline of democracies and the rise of dictatorships, the Chilean approach to human rights became closer to the norm than the exception in Latin America. Thus, in contrast to the UN General Assembly, the OAS General Assembly failed to take action on the reports of its human rights commission on conditions in Chile.⁹⁹

An early indication of the shift in the hemispheric political climate, and a diplomatic triumph for Pinochet, was the OAS's decision to hold a meeting of its general assembly in Santiago in June 1976. This would allow the regime to demonstrate that Chile was, as the propaganda machine repeatedly proclaimed, "an island of peace." While this involved obvious risks, the military's control over the country was so complete that the gamble seemed worthwhile. To prepare for the conference, the regime cracked down on potential sources of trouble just as it intensified the hunt for the last surviving underground opposition, the Communists. Human rights concerns were not absent at the meeting: a few brave dissident Chilean lawyers addressed a damning letter to the delegates, and Henry Kissinger himself, more concerned with appearance than reality, both publicly and privately asked Pinochet to make changes. The government allowed some public debate in an attempt to show that freedom existed; then, after the conference ended, it exiled two of the dissident lawyers, Christian Democrats Jaime Castillo Velasco and Eugenio Velasco Letelier. The assembly considered the second report of the Inter-American Commission on Human Rights on the situation in Chile, and the government responded by rebutting the critical report point by point. Overall, hosting the OAS less than three years after the coup demonstrated that the regime was capable of surmounting international attacks on its human rights performance with minimal damage.¹⁰⁰

The remainder of 1976, however, did not go so smoothly for the regime. In September, the DINA overreached itself by conducting an assassination in the heart of Washington, D.C.'s Embassy Row, a few blocks from the White

House. Orlando Letelier, Allende's first ambassador to Washington, who also served as his minister of foreign affairs and later of defense, had been held a year at Dawson Island with other top UP leaders and expelled from Chile upon his release. He returned to Washington, where he became the most prominent figure lobbying against the Pinochet regime. The dictatorship decided to silence him and put the DINA in charge of the assassination. Led by U.S. citizen and DINA operative Michael Townley, the team attached a bomb to Letelier's automobile and detonated it by remote control, killing Letelier and his American assistant, Ronni Moffitt. Despite the Chilean government's energetic denials of complicity and its claims that leftists had done it to sour relations between Santiago and Washington, the DINA's hand was soon revealed. U.S. demands for the extradition of all those involved in the assassination, including DINA head Contreras, would muddle Chilean-U.S. relations for years to come.¹⁰¹

Six weeks later, Jimmy Carter was elected president. Strongly committed to human rights, Carter was able to build upon the work that Congress had done beginning with the postcoup hearings in late 1973. Led by Democrat representatives Don Fraser and Michael Harrington and senators Ted Kennedy and Tom Harkin, Congress had first targeted the normal flow of military aid to Chile. By June 1976, it enacted legislation to establish an office for human rights in the State Department, which was required to produce annual reports on human rights in all countries that received U.S. aid; negative reports could have financial consequences.

Whereas the Ford administration had tried to evade congressional restrictions, Carter's election brought Congress and the White House into alignment. Declaring in his inaugural address that "our commitment to human rights must be absolute," Carter made the observance of human rights a central tenet of U.S. foreign policy. He appointed Patricia Derian, an aggressive human rights advocate, to the upgraded position of assistant secretary of state for human rights and humanitarian affairs. Under Carter, relations with Pinochet cooled, aid dropped, and the U.S. voted against Chile in the UN and in some international lending agencies. U.S. attempts to sabotage Allende, previous administrations' tolerance of human rights violations under Pinochet, and the personal convictions of a new president and key members of Congress altered U.S. foreign policy in ways that directly affected Chile as well as other Latin American countries.¹⁰²

The Letelier assassination and Carter's election triggered changes in the Pinochet regime. Two weeks after the U.S. election, Pinochet released 302 political prisoners. Meeting with Admiral Patricio Carvajal at the OAS in May 1977, Secretary of State Cyrus Vance urged additional concrete actions

such as ending the state of siege, dissolving the DINA, and moving toward reestablishing civilian government.¹⁰³ The last suggested change received lip service, but the first two occurred within a year, abetted by internal pressures from regime members and supporters who favored the improvement of Chile's international image.

On August 13, 1977, Pinochet dissolved the DINA. The Letelier assassination and Carter's human rights policies had turned Contreras and the DINA, heretofore Pinochet's greatest assets, into liabilities. But despite U.S. pressure, it is unlikely that Pinochet would have acted if the DINA had not essentially accomplished its mission. The decimation of the Communist Party's underground in December 1976, following the earlier destruction of the MIR and Socialist clandestine units, had eliminated the last potential resistance inside Chile. This allowed the regime to announce in June 1977 that it held no more prisoners detained under the state of siege—conveniently ignoring those held in secret. Although he could have, Pinochet did not declare victory over the Marxists, for that would have undermined the rationale for his continuation in power.¹⁰⁴

Seizing the opportunity to refurbish the regime's image while placating Carter, Pinochet replaced the DINA with the less sinister-sounding Centro Nacional de Informaciones (National Information Center, CNI), which the general announced would have a purely informational character. In reality, the CNI was a virtual replica of the DINA, with a new name and a new boss, but essentially the same personnel, duties, and techniques of terrorism. Pinochet also ended the state of siege on March 10, 1978, four and a half years after its inception on the day of the coup, replacing it with a "state of exception," which jurists found to be little different. Although the DINA and the state of siege were gone, the apparatus of state terrorism remained in tact and continued functioning to the end of the regime.¹⁰⁵

A final gesture symbolically closed an era in the military's governance: the amnesty decree of April 19, 1978. Decree law 2191 annested the authors of crimes committed from September 11, 1973, through March 10, 1978—the duration of the state of siege—along with their accomplices and accessories. It applied to crimes by agents of the state and, for the appearance of fairness, crimes committed against the state. To avoid further eroding relations with the United States, the Letelier assassination was not amnestied.¹⁰⁶

Pinochet's amnesty established impunity for four and a half years of state terrorism and grave human rights violations. The sixteen weeks following the coup had cost 1,823 lives according to the official investigation, as well as uncounted other violations. From early January 1974, when the DINA began functioning, through the end of the state of siege—the symbolic truce in

an invented war—nearly eight hundred more people were killed, many of them disappeared.¹⁰⁷ Thousands more were harassed, blacklisted, jailed, tortured, and forced into exile.

Following the cosmetic changes, the amnesty, and the reduction in the level of repression, Pinochet's advisers convinced the general to allow the long-stalled visit of the UN Human Rights Commission. Arriving in July 1978, the delegation met with government officials, church leaders, and families of the disappeared. It visited Villa Grimaldi, which had been converted to an officers' club. The commission's detailed report confirmed earlier reports and allegations and, though highly critical, noted some improvement in human rights conditions.¹⁰⁸

While the UN Human Rights Commission's visit was a historic first, it was but one of many that occurred in response to Chilean state terrorism. The UN, the OAS, and the international human rights NGOs had established an unprecedented level of cooperation over Chile. Together with the domestic human rights movement and the exiles, the international organizations for the first time shone a spotlight on a politically motivated regime of state terrorism. In the words of one author, "Rarely, if ever before, in world history had so many international actors reacted so strongly to human rights abuses."¹⁰⁹ The continuous negative publicity that the dictatorship received, together with the practice of interorganization cooperation, provided an important impetus toward strengthening the global human rights framework that would bear additional fruit in the late 1970s and the 1980s as state terrorism spread first to Argentina and then to Central America. Yet while the international and domestic pressures may have ameliorated the repression within Chile—an unmeasurable proposition—they could not stop it.

Apogee and Denouement of the Regime: April 1978–March 1990

The period from the amnesty through most of 1981 constituted the dictatorship's halcyon years. Under the Chicago Boys' tutelage, the economy began to boom, growing by 7.5 percent annually, and fortunes were made; this was the "Chilean miracle." The economic miracle won Chile international accolades for pioneering the model, which, according to free market economists, all of Latin America should follow. Chilean entrepreneurs labeled themselves the "jaguars"—the smaller but equally dynamic counterparts of the Asian "tigers" of those years. The miracle's trickle down eased the plight of workers, although, without unions and a supportive state, they did not regain their former levels of employment and income.¹¹⁰

With the left defeated and the economy booming, repression eased. A minor threat to the regime emerged after 1978 when the MIR sought to reestablish a presence inside Chile. "Operation Return" involved clandestine entry, recruitment, and organization, an attempt to establish a guerrilla training camp in the southern Andean foothills, and bombings and bank robberies in Santiago that briefly shook the reigning tranquility in 1980 and 1981. The regime responded with heightened repression, but rather than conduct a broad crackdown, it pursued the MIR selectively. Thus, from 1978 through 1980, the toll in murdered and disappeared fell to the lowest level of the entire dictatorship.¹¹¹

After years of preparation, Pinochet submitted a new constitution to the nation in 1980. Following a government propaganda campaign—opponents of the constitution were allowed a single public forum, without television coverage—the new charter was approved in a plebiscite on September 11, 1980, the seventh anniversary of the coup, by an announced 67 percent of the voters. When implemented in March 1981, Pinochet's "Constitution of Liberty" locked in military rule and his own immense powers for eight more years. It also provided for a plebiscite within eight years that could extend his rule for an additional eight-year term. The constitution established the institutional basis of a "protected democracy" designed to prevent the resurrection of the left, preserve the free market economic model, and assure impunity for Pinochet and the military for their human rights crimes after the eventual return of civilian government.¹¹²

In late 1981, a severe economic crisis precipitously ended the economic miracle and brought forth the first open opposition to military rule since the coup. Beginning in 1983, the illegal center and left parties mobilized in periodic "national days of protest," attempted general strikes, formed a broad alliance, and called for a national dialogue to discuss terms of a return to democracy ahead of Pinochet's timetable. In addition to the economic crisis, the end of military rule in Peru, Bolivia, Argentina, Uruguay, and Brazil between 1980 and 1985 further stoked the opposition to Pinochet's continuance in power.¹¹³

Concurrently with the rise of civic opposition, Communist Party operatives returned clandestinely to Chile to establish a second armed opposition group, the Frente Patriótico Manuel Rodríguez (Manuel Rodríguez Patriotic Front, FPMR). By 1984, the FPMR was launching terrorist attacks on military and police targets, bombing power transmission towers and the Santiago metro, and organizing extensively in the slums to form a large cadre of youthful fighters bent on toppling the regime by armed insurrection.¹¹⁴

In response to the two-pronged civic and armed assault on his rule, Pinochet on November 6, 1984, ratcheted up the state of exception to a new

state of siege and increased the repression to a level unseen since 1976. Confronted in the streets for the first time, the regime could no longer keep the repression out of sight. It routinely used unnecessary levels of force and brutality in breaking up the days of protest and other peaceful but illegal demonstrations. It resurrected the neighborhood sweeps of the early post-coup period, surrounding the shantytowns, searching them house by house, and arresting thousands. Among the most notable and highly publicized human rights violations of this period was the March 1985 abduction and murder of three Communists whose throats were slashed (the *degollados*) and their bodies dumped along a road near Santiago by the Carabineros intelligence service. In June 1986, two children, apprehended by a military patrol carrying a bucket of liquid paraffin to ignite wood during a demonstration, were doused with the liquid and set on fire; one died, the other was horribly disfigured, and their photographs appeared around the world. Atrocities that might have seemed routine in the dictatorship's early years had returned, but times had changed: Chileans had grown accustomed to lighter repression, and the democratization of Chile's neighbors made the dictatorship seem anachronistic. Repression from the beginning of the protests in 1981 to the regime's end in March 1990 took a heavy toll: 467 killed or disappeared, unknown numbers arrested and tortured, and more people exiled.¹¹⁵

The domestic human rights movement responded to the recrudescence of repression with renewed commitment and energy. The Vicaría continued its legal representation and other activities, and the newer organizations created under its protection sought to ease the crackdown and free the huge numbers of people arrested in demonstrations and sweeps. The human rights organizations suffered the regime's wrath in the form of harassment, beatings, and expulsions.¹¹⁶

International pressures also mounted in response to the renewed human rights violations after 1981. The UN, the OAS, and the NGOs reported and denounced the government's tactics in countering the protests. The United States, under the presidency of Ronald Reagan since January 1981, had reverted to a foreign policy of *realpolitik*; Carter's concern for human rights was subordinated to U.S. economic and strategic interests. By 1985, however, the State Department began to view the Chilean situation as dangerous. Continued uncritical U.S. support of the regime might strain relations with the new democracies that had replaced dictatorships in most neighboring countries, including South America's largest powers, Brazil and Argentina. Moreover, the deepening U.S. involvement in Central America brought into focus a relevant lesson from Nicaragua: prolonged civic protest and armed conflict in Chile, the resurgence of the once-defeated left, and

Pinochet's intransigence were reminiscent of the formula that had led in 1979 to the Sandinistas' ouster of the Somoza dynasty. Thus the Reagan administration began employing economic pressures and even denunciations of the human rights situation to force Pinochet to ease the repression and, above all, to adhere to the constitution's 1988 deadline for a plebiscite on the extension of his rule.¹¹⁷

The protests ended abruptly after September 7, 1986, when the FPMR attempted to assassinate Pinochet. The dictator survived a spectacular shootout that killed five military escorts and injured another ten. The reaction was ferocious: another state of siege, numerous arrests, neighborhood sweeps, expulsions, heightened censorship, and vigilante-style executions of opposition figures. Recognizing that Pinochet could neither be overthrown by arms nor forced to speed up the transition to civilian rule, and hoping to avoid the further heightening of repression in the assassination attempt's aftermath, the center and left parties dropped the strategy of protest in favor of gearing up for the plebiscite. Moreover, they wished to avoid giving Pinochet any pretext for canceling the plebiscite. They had been forced to play by the dictator's rules and, in so doing, to concede tacitly the legitimacy of his institutions.¹¹⁸

At the height of the protests in 1983 and 1984, Pinochet had reluctantly granted his opponents a few concessions. The most important of these were a slight but significant opening for opposition media; permission for the student and professional organizations to elect their leadership, and thus to recover a degree of independence; and a relaxation of the ban on exiles' return. These concessions proved costly to the regime, as new politically oriented magazines appeared, the opposition won most elections in the professional and student associations, and repatriated exiles brought their convictions and energy with them to the "internal front." The 1983-1984 opening, paid for in blood, was important to the opposition's success in the plebiscite.¹¹⁹

Pinochet's rules for the plebiscite made it difficult for the opposition to mount a campaign against him. However, as the lone military dictator left from the wave that had engulfed South America in the 1960s and 1970s, he came under intense pressure from friendly sources—the U.S. government, much of the Chilean right, and even some within his own military—to hold an election that, unlike his previous plebiscites, would meet minimal standards of fairness and would thus be seen as legitimate. Energized by returned exiles and the long-frustrated desire for change, the center and left parties formed the broad "Concertación por el No" (Coalition for the No) that registered voters, held massive demonstrations, and produced convincing ads for the limited television time allotted. The no won the October 5, 1988,

plebiscite with 53.3 percent of the vote; Pinochet's enraged attempt to throw out the results was thwarted by his fellow commanders. In a peculiarly Chilean twist, the dictatorship, so foreign to national tradition, was ended by a quintessentially Chilean exercise: a massive, peaceful vote in a democratic election.¹²⁰

The dictatorship was not finished yet, however. As specified in constitution and law, seventeen months would transpire before an elected president took office. Pinochet was pressured by both the opposition and his supporters to negotiate some amendments to his constitution in order to soften slightly its unworably authoritarian provisions. But the general remained firmly in control during the transition. While allowing a few concessions, he also changed the rules for the incoming elected government in ways that strengthened the shield of impunity for the human rights crimes that he and the military had committed during sixteen and a half years. The political system he bequeathed to the nation, a faithful incarnation of his concept of protected democracy, would successfully thwart the quest for justice for years to come.

Notes

1. General Horacio Toro, quoted in Sergio Marras, *Palabra de soldado: entrevistas de Sergio Marras* (Santiago: Omitorrinco, 1989), 137.
2. Richard J. Bloomfield, memorandum to Assistant Secretary of State for Latin America William D. Rogers, July 11, 1975, in Peter Kornbluh, ed., *The Pinochet File: A Declassified Dossier on Atrocity and Accountability* (New York: New Press, 2003), 258–59.
3. The best general history of Chile in English is Brian Loveman, *Chile: The Legacy of Hispanic Capitalism*, 3rd ed. (New York: Oxford University Press, 2001). For the nineteenth and twentieth centuries, see Simon Collier and William F. Sater, *A History of Chile, 1808–2002*, 2nd ed. (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004); and Leslie Bethell, ed., *Chile since Independence* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1993).
4. The Radical Party candidate received 5 percent. Collier and Sater, *A History of Chile*, 309, has election results from 1958 through 1973.
5. Michael Fleet, *The Rise and Fall of Chilean Christian Democracy* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1985); Arturo Olavarría Bravo, *Chile bajo la Democracia Cristiana*, 6 vols. (Santiago: Editorial Nascimento, 1966–1971); Cristián Gazmuri et al., *Eduardo Frei Montalva y su época*, 2 vols. (Santiago: Aguilar, 2000). Note that since the Chilean electoral system did not require a runoff in the event that no candidate received a majority, and since there was normally a minimum of three candidates, often more, Allende's relatively small percentage of the vote was not unprecedented.

6. There is a large body of literature on the UP years. Among the more useful books in English are Sergio Bitar, *Chile, Experiment in Democracy*, trans. Sam Sherman (Philadelphia: Institute for the Study of Human Issues, 1986); Stefan de Wylder, *Allende's Chile: The Political Economy of the Rise and Fall of the Unidad Popular* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1976); Paul E. Sigmund, *The Overthrow of Allende and the Politics of Chile, 1964–1976* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1977); Arturo Valenzuela, *The Breakdown of Democratic Regimes: Chile* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1978). For broader studies that cover both the Allende administration and the Pinochet dictatorship, see Lois Hecht Oppenheim, *Politics in Chile: Democracy, Authoritarianism, and the Search for Development*, 2nd ed. (Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1999); and Manuel A. Garretón Merino, *The Chilean Political Process*, trans. Sharon Kellum with Gilbert W. Merkx (Boston: Unwin Hyman, 1989).

7. Kornbluh, *The Pinochet File*, 119 (quoting Secretary of Defense Melvin Laird). This book reproduces dozens of recently declassified documents on U.S. relations with Allende and Pinochet. Jonathan Haslam, *The Nixon Administration and the Death of Allende's Chile: A Case of Assisted Suicide* (London: Verso, 2005); Paul E. Sigmund, *The United States and Democracy in Chile* (Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1993), 11–84. Pamela Constable and Arturo Valenzuela, *A Nation of Enemies: Chile under Pinochet* (New York: W. W. Norton, 1991), 9, refers to Chile's "culture of austere, enlightened civility."

8. Bitar, *Experiment in Democracy*; de Wylder, *Allende's Chile*.

9. Chile, *Report of the Chilean National Commission on Truth and Reconciliation*, trans. Phillip E. Berryman (Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press, 1993), 1:48.

10. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:53.

11. From the title of Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*.

12. Fleet, *Rise and Fall*, 176–81. María Elena Carrera, a senator and member of the Socialist Party's central committee, admitted later that, although her party was certain that the coup was coming, "all of our preparations were more plans than realities." Thomas C. Wright and Rody Oñate, *Flight from Chile: Voices of Exile* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1998), 14. This chapter draws from several studies of the dictatorship and its human rights violations, including Rodrigo Atria et al., *Chile, la memoria prohibida: las violaciones a los derechos humanos, 1973–1983*, 3 vols. (Santiago: Pehuén Editores, 1989); Ascanio Cavallo Castro, Manuel Salazar Salvo, and Oscar Sepúlveda Pacheco, *Chile, 1973–1988: la historia oculta del régimen militar* (Santiago: Editorial Antártica, 1989); Genaro Arriagada, *Por la razón o la fuerza: Chile bajo Pinochet* (Santiago: Editorial Sudamericana, 1998); Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*; Mary Helen Spooner, *Soldiers in a Narrow Land: The Pinochet Regime in Chile*, updated ed. (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1999); Samuel Valenzuela and Arturo Valenzuela, *Military Rule in Chile: Dictatorship and Oppositions* (Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1986); and Garretón, *The Chilean Political Process*, 117–212.

13. This description of the coup and its aftermath draws on numerous sources, including Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida* 1: 77–212; Ernesto Ekaizer, *Yo, Augusto* (Buenos Aires: Aguilar, 2003), 31–177; Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 15–39; Patricia Verdugo, *Interferencia secreta: 11 de septiembre de 1973*, with CD (Santiago: Editorial Sudamericana, 1998). General Augusto Pinochet, who would become junta leader, refers to the skirmishes in the capital as “the battle of Santiago,” in Pinochet, *Camino recorrido: biografía de un soldado* (Santiago: Instituto Geográfico Militar de Chile, 1990), 1:293–300.
14. This and the following paragraphs rely on *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:129–468; Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 1:77–404; Amnesty International, *Informe sobre presos políticos retenidos en campos secretos de detención en Chile, marzo de 1977* (Barcelona: La Faya-Ciencia, 1977); Amnesty International, *Chile, Torture and the Naval Training Ship the “Esmeralda”* (London: International Secretariat, 2003); Manuel Ahumada Lillo, *Cerro Chena testimonio* (Santiago: Ediciones Tierra Mía, 2003).
15. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:99–116; Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 1:213–77; Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 24. One of the most notorious cases of racial repression, which dated from October 1973, came to light in 1978 when fifteen bodies were discovered in a mine at Lonquén. Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 255–64. Isabel Allende’s novel, *Of Love and Shadows*, trans. Margaret Sayers Peden (New York: Dial Press, 2005), is based on that discovery.
16. Bando no. 5, in Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 22.
17. Collier and Sater, *A History of Chile*, 358, called the attack on the Moneda “the most dramatic and tragic moment in the modern history of Chile.” *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:79. See Brian Loveman, *The Constitution of Tyranny: Regimes of Exception in Spanish America* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1993), for an overview of the use of states of exception throughout the region.
18. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:74–80. Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 19–40.
19. Augusto Pinochet U., *El día decisivo*, 5th ed. (Santiago: Editorial Andrés Bello, 1984), 260.
20. Ekaizer, *Yo, Augusto*, 142–43; Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 19, 39.
21. Sigmund, *The United States and Democracy*, 86–87, discusses the differing views of the CIA’s involvement in Plan Z.
22. *The White Book of the Change of Government in Chile: 11th of September* (Santiago: Empresa Editora Nacional Gabriela Mistral, n.d.), 29 (the language is that of the book’s English edition). Circulation of the *White Book* was so massive that even a very junior assistant professor, the author of this book, received a complimentary copy in the mail. David Kohut, Olga Vilella, and Beatrice Julian, *Historical Dictionary of the “Dirty Wars”* (Lanham, MD: Scarecrow Press, 2003) is a useful reference work on the state terrorist regimes of Chile, Argentina, and Uruguay.
23. Patricia Verdugo, *Chile, Pinochet, and the Caravan of Death*, trans. Marcelo Montecino (Coral Gables, FL: North-South Center Press, 2001).

24. Verdugo, *Caravan of Death*, 24.

25. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:57–59; Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 1:283–90, 413–14; Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 54–57.
26. Corporación Nacional de Reparación y Reconciliación, *Informe sobre calificación de víctimas de violaciones de derechos humanos y de la violencia política* (Santiago: Corporación Nacional de Reparación y Reconciliación, 1996), 579. The exact number of deaths and disappearances established for 1973 was 1,823.
27. Verdugo, *Interferencia secreta*, 121–22; *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:129–146; Patricia Politzer, *Fear in Chile: Lives under Pinochet*, trans. Diane Wachtell (New York: Pantheon, 1989), 3–19, 69–92, 140–88, 214–45.
28. This and the following paragraph are based on Patricio Orellana and Elizabeth Q. Hutchison, *El movimiento de derechos humanos en Chile, 1973–1990* (Santiago: Centro de Estudios Políticos Latinoamericanos Simón Bolívar [CEPLA], 1991), esp. 11–23, 91–94, 162–66; Brian H. Smith, *The Church and Politics in Chile* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1982), 287–94; Pamela Lowden, *Moral Opposition to Authoritarian Rule in Chile, 1973–1990* (London: Macmillan Press, 1996), 27–51.
29. Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 40. Pinochet said of Cardinal Archbishop Raúl Silva Henríquez, “He appeared to have more Marxist or socialist ideas than any leftist political leader.” Pinochet, *Camino recorrido*, 2:24.
30. Wright and Oñate, *Flight from Chile*, 39–54; Mark Ensalaco, *Chile under Pinochet: Recovering the Truth* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2000), 31–36.
31. Sigmund, *The United States and Democracy*, 85–107; Hernando Muñoz, *Las relaciones exteriores del gobierno militar chileno* (Santiago: Omitorrinco, 1986), 23–25; Lars Schoultz, *Human Rights and United States Policy toward Latin America* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1981), 52–58; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 78–79.
32. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:55; Frederick M. Nunn, *The Military in Chilean History: Essays on Civil-Military Relations, 1810–1973* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1976), esp. 242–308; Genaro Arriagada Herrera, *El pensamiento político de los militares (estudios sobre Chile, Argentina, Brasil y Uruguay)* (Santiago: Editorial Aconcagua, 1986), 84–107; Gregory Weeks, *The Military and Politics in Postauthoritarian Chile* (Tuscaloosa: University of Alabama Press, 2003), 31–42.
33. Nunn, *The Military in Chilean History*, 242–308; Arriagada, *El pensamiento político*, 84–107. Note that the Communist Party had been outlawed between 1948 and 1958, at the onset of the Cold War.
34. Nunn, *The Military in Chilean History*, 253–308.
35. This interpretation draws from Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 35–36.
36. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:57–65; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 66–70, cites the deaths of Generals Augusto Lutz and Oscar Bonilla as likely results of their opposition to the growing influence of the DINA. Air force general Alberto Bachelet, father of Chile’s president Michelle Bachelet, died following torture in the air force hospital in Santiago.

37. Alexandra Barahona de Brito, *Human Rights and Democratization in Latin America: Uruguay and Chile* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1997), 41; Sandra McGee Deutsch, *Las Derechas: The Extreme Right in Argentina, Brazil, and Chile, 1890-1939* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1999), 11-25, 59-77, 143-92; Thomas C. Wright, *Landowners and Reform in Chile: The Sociedad Nacional de Agricultura, 1919-1940* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1982), 171-97. The candidate whom the right had originally committed to support, Julio Durán of the Radical Party, stayed in the race but drew only 5 percent of the vote.
38. Deutsch, *Las Derechas*, 338.
39. Paul S. Reinsch, "Parliamentary Government in Chile," *American Political Science Review* 3 (1909): 508, described the Chilean elites in the early twentieth century as "an aristocracy of birth and wealth [which] has unquestioned control of social and political life. This society constitutes at the present time the only aristocracy in the world which still has full and acknowledged control of the economic, social, and political forces of the state in which they live." Those Chilean rightists who in the 1970s desired to return to these ideal conditions had, according to one scholar, "an unarticulated vision of a kind of regressive utopia." Barahona de Brito, *Human Rights and Democratization*, 56; Garretón, *Chilean Political Process*, 75-81; Armand Mattelart, *La burguesía en la escuela de Lenin: el gremialismo y la línea de masas de la burguesía chilena* (Lima: Centro de Documentación MIEC-JECI, 1974).
40. Quoted in Thomas G. Sanders, "Military Government in Chile," in *The Politics of Antipolitics: The Military in Latin America*, ed. Brian Loveman and Thomas M. Davies Jr., 1st ed. (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1978), 274.
41. Juan Gabriel Valdés, *Pinochet's Economists: The Chicago School in Chile* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1995).
42. See Richard R. Fagen, *The Transformation of Political Culture in Cuba* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1969).
43. If one calculates the Marxists' strength on the basis of support for the UP, it would be around 40 percent of Chile's population (based on the 1970 presidential and 1973 congressional elections). Membership in the Marxist parties, of course, was much smaller.
44. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:469. Human rights advocate José Zalaquett testified before the U.S. Congress in 1976 that "after February 1974, the methods changed suddenly. The intelligence services no longer announced deaths and detained persons began to disappear." Arria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 1:389.
45. There is an abundance of testimonial literature that reveals the diversity among victims. Examples include Hernán Valdés, *Diary of a Chilean Concentration Camp*, trans. Jo Labanyi (London: Gollancz, 1975); Aníbal Quijada, *Cerco de prías* (Santiago: Fuego y Tierra, 1990); Orilia Vargas V., *La dictadura me arrebató cinco hijos* (Santiago: Editorial Mosquito Comunicaciones, 1991); Comité de Defensa de los Derechos del Pueblo (CODEPU), *Todas íbamos a ser reinas: estudio sobre nueve mujeres embarazadas que fueron detenidas y desaparecidas en Chile* (Santiago: Quimo Im-

pres, 1990); and Rosario Rojas de Estudillo et al., *Memorias contra el olvido* (Santiago: Amerinda Ediciones, 1987).

46. Peter Winn, ed., *Victims of the Chilean Miracle: Workers and Neoliberalism in the Pinochet Era, 1973-2002* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2004); Joseph Collins and John Lear, *Chile's Free Market Miracle: A Second Look* (Oakland, CA: Institute for Food and Development Policy, 1994); Marjorie Agosin, *Tapestries of Hope, Threads of Love: The Arpillera Movement in Chile, 1974-1994* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1996) documents a shantytown form of protest in which women wove their reactions to repression in burlap.

47. Lovell S. Jarvis, *Chilean Agriculture under Military Rule: From Reform to Reaction, 1973-1980* (Berkeley: Institute of International Studies, University of California, 1985); Patricio Silva, *Estado, neoliberalismo y política agraria en Chile, 1973-1981* (Amsterdam: CEDLA, 1987); Cristóbal Kay and Patricio Silva, eds., *Development and Social Change in the Chilean Countryside: From the Pre-Land Reform Period to the Democratic Transition* (Amsterdam: Centre for Latin American Research and Documentation, 1992).

48. Only twelve Christian Democrats were identified among the total of 3,197 persons certified as killed or disappeared by government investigative bodies following the dictatorship's end. See Corporación Nacional de Reparación y Reconciliación, *Informe*, 591; Fleet, *Rise and Fall*, 182-207.

49. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:478-83; Arria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 2:271-347.

50. The testimonies of two leftists who became DINA agents are among the best firsthand accounts of the agency's workings: Marcia Alejandra Merino Vega, *Mi verdad: "más allá del horror, yo acuso..."* (Santiago: Printed at A.T.G., S.A., 1993); and Luz Arce, *The Inferno: A Story of Terror and Survival in Chile*, trans. Stacey Alba Skar (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 2004). Also, *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:471-505; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 51-60, 113-22, 133-42; Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 90-114; Ekaizer, Yo, *Augusto*, 215-37; Manuel Salazar Salvo, *Contreras: historia de un intocable* (Santiago: Grijalbo, 1995).

51. Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 91.

52. Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 50. Referring to the twentieth century's other paradigmatic secret police organization, a U.S. defense attaché in Santiago wrote in January 1974, before the DINA's existence had been made public, that the DINA "is becoming a KGB-type organization." Kornbluh, ed., *The Pinochet File*, 163.

53. The term "state within a military state" was used by Covey Oliver, a member of an International Commission of jurists delegation that visited Chile in 1974, in testimony before the U.S. House of Representatives' Committee on Foreign Affairs. It is cited in Ensalcado, *Chile under Pinochet*, 110. Pinochet's consolidation of power over the junta and the army is chronicled in Genaro Arriagada Herrera, *Pinochet: The Politics of Power*, trans. Nancy Morris (Boston: Unwin Hyman, 1988); and Arturo

- Valenzuela, "The Military in Power: The Consolidation of One-Man Rule," in *The Struggle for Democracy in Chile*, ed. Paul W. Drake and Iván Jaksic, rev. ed. (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1995), 21–72. See also Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 64–89.
54. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:472.
55. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:471–505; Nicolás Sánchez Albornoz, *The Population of Latin America: A History* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1974), 247.
56. The MIR's resistance is chronicled in Carmen Rojas, *Recuerdos de una MIRista* (Montevideo: Ediciones del Taller, 1988). See also Pinochet, *Camino recorrido*, 2:287–349; Wright and Oñate, *Flight from Chile*, 70–90; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 51–60.
57. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:483–92.
58. An insider's view of Villa Grimaldi is found in Merino Vega, *Mi verdad*, 65–104. See also *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:485–87; and Wright and Oñate, *Flight from Chile*, 79–84. See the Derechos Chile website, www.derechos.org (accessed June 3, 2003) and the pamphlet by Pedro Alejandro Matta, "A Walk through a 20th-Century Torture Center: Villa Grimaldi, Santiago de Chile; A Visitor's Guide" (2000).
59. Eugenio Hojman, 1973–1989 *Memorial de la dictadura: cronología de 16 años de pesadilla* (Santiago: Editorial Emisión, 1990), 105.
60. Chile, *Informe de la Comisión Nacional sobre Prisión Política y Tortura*, 281. This report may be seen at www.latinamericanstudies.org/chile/informe.htm (accessed November 18, 2005).
61. The seventeen categories of torture were compiled by the National Commission against Torture and are cited in Ensalaco, *Chile under Pinochet*, 91. See also Katarina Reszczyński, Paz Rojas, and Patricia Barceló, *Tortura y resistencia en Chile: estudio médico-político* (Santiago: Editorial Emisión, 1991); Eric Stover, *The Open Secret: Torture and the Medical Profession in Chile* (Washington, DC: American Association for the Advancement of Science, 1987); Carlos Basso, *El último secreto de Colonia Dignidad* (Santiago: Editorial Mare Nostrum, 2002); Devyanira Corvalán interview, Santiago, November 15, 2002.
62. Gladys Díaz interview, in Wright and Oñate, *Flight from Chile*, 79–84.
63. Nancy Guzmán, *Romo: confesiones de un torturador* (Santiago: Editorial Planeta, 2000), 153, 159, 161, 172. Also, Nancy Guzmán interview, Santiago, November 15, 2002.
64. Helmut Frenz, "Porqué este era el único camino," in Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 1:xxvii.
65. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:501–3; Guzmán, *Romo*, 163–65. See also chapter 6, 207–9, for more on the disposal of bodies. On the disappeared in general, see Vicaría de la Solidaridad, *Informe sobre 384 casos de personas desaparecidas, Julio '76*, 5 vols. (Santiago: Arzobispado de Santiago, Vicaría de la Solidaridad, 1976); León Gómez Araneda, *Tras la huella de los desaparecidos* (Santiago: Ediciones Caleuche, 1990).
66. For an excellent study of fear under state terrorism, see Juan E. Corradi, Patricia Weiss Fagen, and Manuel Antonio Garretón, eds., *Fear at the Edge: State Terror and Resistance in Latin America* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1992), esp. 89; Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 140–65.
67. Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 148.
68. Politzer, *Fear in Chile*, xiii.
69. Guzmán, *Romo*, 106, quoting Patricia García.
70. Juana Shanahan interview, Santiago, November 20, 2002; *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 2:788–89.
71. Kornbluh, *The Pinochet File*, 328.
72. John Dinges, *The Condor Years: How Pinochet and His Allies Brought Terrorism to Three Continents* (New York: New Press, 2004); J. Patrice McSherry, *Predatory States: Operation Condor and Covert War in Latin America* (Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield, 2005); Edwin Harrington and Mónica González, *Bomba en una calle de Palermo* (Santiago: Editorial Emisión, 1987); Alejandro Carrió, *Los crímenes del Cóndor: el caso Prats y la trama de conspiraciones entre los servicios de inteligencia del Cono Sur* (Buenos Aires: Sudamericana, 2005).
73. Dinges, *The Condor Years*, 130–33, 142–43, 175–98.
74. The discussion of exile is based primarily on Wright and Oñate, *Flight from Chile*. Article 9 says, "No one shall be subjected to arbitrary arrest, detention, or exile." Article 13.2 says, "Everyone has the right to leave any country, including his own, and to return to his country." The regime also used internal exile, or *relegación*, as a form of punishment.
75. Ana Laura Cataldo interview in Wright and Oñate, *Flight from Chile*, 62.
76. Clodomiro Almeyda, *Reencuentro con mi vida* (Santiago: Omitorrinco, 1987), 274.
77. Dinges, *The Condor Years*, 229.
78. *Qué Pasa*, April 2–8, 1981, 7; *La Nación*, November 26, 1982.
79. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:117–26 (quotation 117); Alejandra Matus, *El libro negro de la justicia chilena* (Santiago: Editorial Planeta, 1999).
80. Lowden, *Moral Opposition*, 151. The numbers of habeas corpus writs filed and accepted vary from source to source, but Lowden's figures are within the common range. See, for example, Cynthia G. Brown, *Human Rights and the "Politics of Agreements": Chile during President Aylwin's First Year* (New York: Americas Watch, 1991), 36–37.
81. *Report of the Chilean National Commission*, 1:119.
82. Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 116.
83. Constable and Valenzuela, *Nation of Enemies*, 152–59; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 167–76.
84. Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 2:101–39.
85. *El Mercurio*, July 25, 1975, quoted in Kornbluh, *The Pinochet File*; http://friends.oflatinamerica.typepad.com/hocofola/2005/08/demanding_the_m.html (accessed November 8, 2005).

86. Chile lost 380 clerics in the first two years after the coup, 314 of whom were foreigners. Many were expelled or pressured to leave the country. Some were tortured, and a few were murdered. Smith, *The Church and Politics*, 329–33.
87. Smith, *The Church and Politics*, 67–161; Lowden, *Moral Opposition*, 13–25.
88. Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 2:473. See Lowden, *Moral Opposition*, 53–149; Cynthia G. Brown, *The Vicaría de la Solidaridad in Chile* (New York: Americas Watch, 1987); Jaime Esponda F., "Objetivos y criterios estratégicos aplicados por la Vicaría de la Solidaridad del Arzobispado de Santiago en su tarea de defensa de los derechos humanos," in *Represión política y defensa de los derechos humanos*, ed. Hugo Frühling E. (Santiago: Centro de Estudios Sociales-CESOC, 1986), 107–31; Oscar Pinochet de la Barra, *El Cardenal Silva Henríquez: luchador por la justicia* (Santiago: Editorial Salesiana, 1987).
89. Mario Garcés D. and Nancy Nicholls L., *Para una historia de los derechos humanos en Chile: historia institucional de la Fundación de Ayuda Social de las Iglesias Cristianas FASIC*, 1975–1991 (Santiago: LOM Ediciones, 2005); Orellana and Hutchison, *Derechos humanos*, 143–94; Elizabeth Lira K., "Psicología y derechos humanos en una situación represiva: la experiencia de la FASIC," in *Represión política*, ed. Frühling, 269–91.
90. Orellana and Hutchison, *Derechos humanos*, 5–68, 204–25; Hernán Vidal, *Da la vida por la vida: la Agrupación Chilena de Familiares de Detenidos Desaparecidos* (Minneapolis: Institute for the Study of Ideologies and Literature, 1982); Silvia Fernández Ramil and Jorge Osorio Vargas, "Notas sobre algunas experiencias de educación para los derechos humanos en Chile," in *Represión política*, ed. Frühling, 185–209; Patricia M. Chuchryk, "Subversive Mothers: The Opposition to Military Rule in Chile," in *Surviving Beyond Fear: Women, Children and Human Rights in Latin America*, ed. Marjorie Agosin (Fredonia, NY: White Pine Press, 1993), 86–97. Most of the organizations published—and some continue to do so—periodic reports on their activities.
91. Ensalcado, *Chile under Pinochet*, 120.
92. Orellana and Hutchison, *Derechos humanos*, 51–52.
93. Long-time human rights advocate and leader Aryeh Neier wrote, "Pinochet's coup, and the role played by Richard Nixon, Henry Kissinger, and the CIA in bringing it about, were crucial in the emergence of the human rights movement in the United States." Neier, *Taking Liberties: Four Decades in the Struggle for Rights* (New York: Public Affairs, 2003). See also Margaret E. Keck and Kathryn Sikkink, *Activists beyond Borders: Advocacy Networks in International Politics* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1998), 89–90; and Darren G. Hawkins, *International Human Rights and Authoritarian Rule in Chile* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 2002), 57, 81.
94. Howard Tolley Jr., *The U.N. Commission on Human Rights* (Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1987), 63–66, 70–82, 86, 104, 111–33; Ensalcado, *Chile under Pinochet*, 98–124, 163–67; Muñoz, *Relaciones exteriores*, 191–97, 309–15; Hawkins, *International Human Rights*, 61–62; Iain Guest, *Behind the Disappearances: Argentina's Dirty War against Human Rights and the United Nations* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1990), 95–98. Guest writes, "The Chilean coup had a dramatic impact on the U.N." (97).
95. Inter-American Commission on Human Rights, *Report on the Status of Human Rights in Chile: Findings of "On the Spot" Observations in the Republic of Chile July 22–August 2, 1974* (Washington, DC: OAS, 1974); Inter-American Commission on Human Rights, *Second Report on the Situation of Human Rights in Chile* (Washington, DC: OAS, 1976); Inter-American Commission on Human Rights, *Third Report on the Situation of Human Rights in Chile* (Washington, DC: OAS, 1977); Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 22–23.
96. *Las Últimas Noticias*, November 12, 1974, quoted in Orellana and Hutchison, *Derechos humanos*, 168.
97. Quoted in Schoultz, *Human Rights and United States Policy*, 53–54.
98. Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 178–88.
99. Muñoz, *Relaciones exteriores*, 197–200; Schoultz, *Human Rights and United States Policy*, 132–34.
100. Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 2:245–70; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 146–51; Ensalcado, *Recovering the Truth*, 117–24. Kornbluh, *The Pinochet File*, 234–37, makes it clear that Kissinger was interested in image, not substance, in human rights matters.
101. John Dinges and Saul Landau, *Assassination on Embassy Row* (New York: McGraw-Hill, 1980); Taylor Branch and Eugene M. Proper, *Labyrinth* (New York: Viking Press, 1982); Alejandra Matus Acuña and Francisco Javier Artaza, *Crimen con castigo* (Santiago: La Nación Ediciones B, 1996).
102. Schoultz, *Human Rights and United States Policy*, 109–34.
103. Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 2:413–17; Sigmund, *the United States and Democracy*, 110–11.
104. Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 3:9–47; Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 87–90.
105. Atria et al., *Memoria prohibida*, 3:9–47; Hojman, *Memorial de la dictadura*, 91; Sigmund, *The United States and Democracy*, 110–18.
106. *Diario Oficial*, April 19, 1978. Brian Loveman and Elizabeth Lira, *Las ardientes cenizas del olvido: vía chilena de reconciliación política 1932–1994* (Santiago: LOM Ediciones, 2000), 451–65.
107. Corporación Nacional de Reparación y Reconciliación, *Informe*, 577.
108. Guest, *Behind the Disappearances*, 167–68.
109. Hawkins, *International Human Rights*, 3. Hawkins also writes, "While international human rights norms were developed on paper from the 1940s to the 1960s, the Chilean coup triggered one of the first and most extensive efforts to translate those norms into practice" (55).
110. Winn, *Victims of the Chilean Miracle*; Arriagada, *Por la razón*, 75–87, 289.
111. Corporación Nacional de Reparación y Reconciliación, *Informe*, 577; Cavallo, Salazar, and Sepúlveda, *Historia oculta*, 290–98, 343–52.
112. José Luis Cea Egaña, *Tratado de la Constitución de 1980: características generales, garantías constitucionales* (Santiago: Editorial Jurídica de Chile, 1988); Cavallo,

students, teachers and professors, journalists, actors, artists, and other professionals, particularly psychiatrists and defense lawyers. Interbranch rivalry, personal ambitions, incompetence, greed, and the opportunity to settle personal scores under cover of the antisubversive crusade yielded still more victims, including some not even suspected of subversion. Some were victimized randomly, while others were collateral damage of murders or disappearances.⁴⁵

The Disappeared

When they seized power in March 1976, the Argentine military commanders were keenly aware of the international outcry against human rights violations in Chile. They had observed the almost overnight strengthening of the world's human rights lobby, the unprecedented steps that the UN had taken to condemn the Pinochet regime, and the response of the U.S. Congress and the new, burgeoning U.S. human rights movement. Yet rather than being deterred from their mission of eradicating the left, the Argentines selected a method that they believed would allow them to go undetected and thus avoid the international pressures directed at the Chilean military government.⁴⁶

The military regime detained, tortured, and exiled many thousands of people. It murdered over 3,800 individuals whose bodies were recovered for burial. But the Argentine dirty war became synonymous with disappearances; the Argentine military regime made the term "disappear" a sinister transitive verb. The Inter-American Commission on Human Rights called disappearance "a true form of torture for the victim's family and friends, because of the uncertainty they experience as to the fate of the victim and because they feel powerless to provide legal, moral, and material assistance." *Nunca más*, the report of the Comisión Nacional sobre la Desaparición de Personas (National Commission on the Disappearance of Persons, CONADEP), which was established after the end of military rule, likened the effect of disappearances on loved ones to "permanently leaning over the abyss of a horror without limits." The mother of a disappeared person explained the impact of this method of state terror: "Disappearance is inexplicable. You are left with a void that is never filled."⁴⁷

The disappearance served the regime's purposes because, since there were neither publicly accessible arrest records nor corpses, the government enjoyed plausible deniability. Disappearance served to intensify and prolong the general state of terror by which the military ruled. It was a means of discouraging public outcries and the formation of a cohesive opposition; as long as

one's family member was missing rather than certified as dead, as long as even a ray of hope continued for the loved one's safety, family and friends were neutralized, afraid that speaking out or aggravating the authorities would result in his or her death. Further, the regime's frequently repeated explanations of the whereabouts of the disappeared—that they had gone underground, were in voluntary exile, or had been killed in internecine fighting among terrorist bands—could not be disproved and thus provided a means of denial in which many Argentines took refuge. For these reasons, as well as an extreme perversity on the part of some who would deny families the solace of mourning and burying a body, the Argentine military dictatorship perfected the disappearance.⁴⁸

Nunca más, publications of human rights groups, testimonies of survivors of detention centers and a few repressors, and the trials of the former rulers allow us to establish the anatomy of a disappearance, from start to finish. All branches of the military and police were involved in disappearances, but hands-on practitioners were relatively few. In the military's arrangement for territorial administration, Argentina was divided into security zones that coincided with the jurisdiction of the four army corps, with smaller zones for the navy and air force. These jurisdictions were further divided into some forty subzones and hundreds of areas. Under general orders from the top, zone, subzone, and area commanders set up *grupos de tareas*, task groups of military and police personnel that operated semiautonomously in conducting disappearances. Officers not connected to task forces were sometimes assigned to participate in them or were given duties as executioners in order to spread responsibility and establish a "blood pact" of silence.⁴⁹

The task group, which carried out abductions that initiated disappearances, consisted normally of between half a dozen and a dozen men, usually dressed in civilian clothes and using unmarked cars, particularly Ford Falcons. The majority (62 percent) of abductions that were witnessed by a survivor and verified by CONADEP were conducted at night; a majority (also 62 percent) of abductions occurred in the victim's domicile, while others took place on public thoroughfares (24.6 percent), in workplaces (7 percent), or in places of study (6 percent).⁵⁰

In the case of abductions at home, the task groups informed local police of impending actions so that they would stay clear; this was known as the "green light." The kidnappers would enter the victim's home, rough him or her up, and beat or threaten family members or others found on the premises. The intended victim was not present, the abductors normally waited, holding other residents or unwitting visitors captive until the victim arrived. They routinely sacked the home for war booty. To enhance and extend the

sense of terror that abductions caused, the task groups sometimes flouted their impunity, calling attention to their actions throughout the neighborhood by making loud noises, firing weapons, or blocking traffic while executing the abduction. A report on a 1976 case indicated that the perpetrators went "into the street with their prisoners, in the middle of the morning, in the sight of neighbors and passersby, pointing hand guns and rifles and waiting unhurriedly and with complete impunity."⁵¹

Abducted persons were not taken to regular police facilities to be booked, where their detention would become a matter of public record, but to secret detention centers whose existence could be and was consistently denied.⁵² The regime set up approximately 380 of these facilities throughout the country, many located in secured areas within military bases and police stations. Others were in such diverse settings as hospitals, government offices, automobile repair shops, schools, farms, and even the basement of the upscale Galerías Pacífico on Buenos Aires' downtown Florida shopping street. Thus many people were held and tortured within feet or even inches of normal life. As one prisoner recalled, "I could hear people walking by, cars and buses passing, life going on as usual, with us disappearing in a concentration camp. We were in the world but not part of it, alive in the realm of death."⁵³

The five largest secret detention centers were the Escuela de Mecánica de la Armada (Navy Mechanics School, ESMA) and the Club Atlético, a federal police facility, both in very visible Buenos Aires locations; the Campo de Mayo army base and Vesubio, a former summer residence, both in the province of Buenos Aires; and La Perla, a military base in Córdoba Province. Among them, these five facilities are estimated to have received some 14,500 prisoners. Regardless of size, all the detention centers housed torture facilities, prisoners' quarters, military or police personnel, and, commonly, living quarters for the torturers themselves. The secret detention centers were conceived "more than for the sheer physical suppression of the victims, for submitting them to a meticulous and planned despoilment of the attributes of any human. Because entering them meant in every case CEASING TO EXIST [sic]."⁵⁴

Such was the case of ESMA, known as the Argentine Auschwitz, the most vivid symbol of state terrorism, located on Buenos Aires' busy Avenida Libertador San Martín. Occupying a prime site, the school was a well-kept, tranquil-appearing symbol of navy pride where junta member Admiral Emilio Massera ran one of the most feared task groups, GT 3/32. While ESMA's normal functions as an engineering school continued, the officers' living quarters were remodeled to accommodate a torture center, hospital, and photography laboratory in the basement, and cubicles on the third floor and the loft where prisoners were kept following torture. The second floor held a large

storeroom for war booty. GT 3/32 headquarters was on the ground floor, and officers lived on the second floor and part of the third. Both ambitious and ruthless, Massera urged his men in GT 3/32 to take on the enemy "with the maximum violence," and he reportedly engaged directly in the torture along with a list of sadists including lieutenants Antonio Pernía, Alfredo Astiz, and Juan Carlos Rolón. ESMA became notorious also for its "death flights" in which prisoners were thrown from aircraft into the Atlantic Ocean. Over five thousand abducted persons passed through ESMA; most perished.⁵⁵

Upon arriving at a detention center, prisoners were assigned numbers, like Jews in Nazi extermination camps, and were taken immediately to the torture chambers, which in some centers were called *quirófanos*, or operating theaters, as found in hospitals. One survivor described the *quirófano* in the following terms: "This was a very sinister place, the walls were so covered with blood and stains that you could barely make out that it had once been painted yellow. The smell of burned flesh, blood, sweat, and excrement . . . made the air heavy, suffocating."⁵⁶ Prisoners faced a wide range of physical and psychological torture, as in the Chilean DINA's centers. As reported by prisoners detained in five different centers, there was a standard regimen of torture that varied according to the victim's value to the repressors, the quality of information extracted, and his or her ability to resist; it usually lasted between one and ten days. The most commonly used instrument was the electric cattle prod, or *picana*, an earlier Argentine invention that served as effectively for torture as for herding. Prisoners were strapped to a metal table and tortured with the *picana* for hours on the most sensitive body parts, occasionally being wetted down for greater effect. These torture sessions were called "a chat with Susan" in some detention centers. Medical doctors supervised the torture, calling off the sessions when victims approached death, then reviving them with serums and vitamins to face more torture.⁵⁷

Alternating with the *picana* were the submarine, hanging by the feet, rape, burning with cigarettes, mock executions, beatings with clubs or chains, and deafening noises. Sadists invented torture instruments of their own, including a thick broom handle with 220 volt wires attached called the "Carolina" and a rectal torture device called the *rectóscopo*.⁵⁸

Psychological torture took various forms. Some repressors allowed prisoners to speak with or write to their families and even visit them; this prolonged the family's and the victim's agony by kindling hopes of survival that were almost never realized. Psychological torture also included reassurance to the prisoners that they would eventually be sent to rehabilitation camps or legal prisons—a rare occurrence. And the uncertainty of one's fate and the inability to influence it were a psychological torture that all prisoners had to endure.

Perhaps the cruelest psychological torture was making one witness, visually or aurally, or both, the physical torture of a spouse, child, or parent.⁵⁹

After the period of intense torture, prisoners were moved to a holding area called the *capucha*, or hood, for the hoods prisoners wore. There, in the words of a survivor, "Hell awaited them . . . , permanent terror, isolation and impotence in the face of constant humiliation."⁶⁰ Typically, they were handcuffed and shackled in spaces so tiny they were called *tubos*, or tubes. They continued to receive physical abuse in the form of beatings, continuous bright light and loud music; some were returned to the operating theater for more torture. Hygienic and dietary conditions were miserable: all lost weight and many got sick, but if they were deemed worthy of keeping alive, doctors attended them. The isolation, terror, subhuman conditions, and the knowledge that there was little chance of leaving alive drove some prisoners insane.⁶¹

Pregnant women received different treatment if they and their fetuses survived the initial torture. As their delivery time approached, they were taken from the *tubos* to an infirmary, where they received improved nutrition, and ultimately to a facility that had birthing service, such as ESMA. After giving birth, they were separated from their child and were sometimes killed straight away or were returned to the *tubos* to await the common fate. The infants born in captivity, along with small children captured with their parents, were given, along with false documentation, to childless military couples or others favored by the regime to raise as their own. To the military mind, being raised in a Christian and patriotic family would be a blessing for children otherwise headed for perfdy under the influence of their subversive parents.⁶²

Jews suffered disproportionately, in part because of their overrepresentation in some of the "subversive" or suspect categories and professions, and in part owing to virulent anti-Semitism within the military and police and within the extreme right in general. The common notion that Argentina was fighting to protect its Western Christian heritage in itself demonized Jews and legitimized anti-Semitic actions. With the largest Jewish community in Latin America, Argentina had seen several waves of anti-Semitism since the era of mass immigration in the late nineteenth century, some involving serious violence. Moreover, the military contained professed admirers of Hitler for whom the dirty war provided the opportunity to indulge their proclivities.⁶³

Jews accounted for less than 2 percent of Argentina's population but 10 percent of the disappeared. According to much evidence, they suffered even greater abuse and humiliation than non-Jews. Jews were very commonly subjected to treatment such as being called "dirty Jews" and "the Antichrist"; being lectured on the evils of Jews and told repeatedly that "the only good Jew is a dead Jew"; being forced to kneel before portraits of Hitler, to listen to

recordings of his speeches, and to shout "Heil Hitler"; and having swastikas painted on their bodies. In addition, they often suffered harsher physical treatment because of their Jewishness.

The fate of prisoners held in secret detention centers was exclusively in the hands of the repressors. There was no access to attorneys or courts and no possibility of appeal. In the overall scheme of the dirty war, the authority over life and death was decentralized, residing in the hands of zone and sub-zone commanders or their subordinates unless a prisoner's case received notice at the top of the hierarchy. Thus, the colonel's boast that he was the angel of life and death was far from hyperbole. There were three options for the living disappeared: liberation, transfer to the legal prison system, or death. Prisoners were graded on official documents in three categories based on their degree of dangerousness: "potentially dangerous," "dangerous," and "extremely dangerous." Some of those rated "potentially dangerous" were freed or sent to the regular prison system; those in the other two categories were normally slated for death.⁶⁴

As a prisoner explained, "One learned rapidly: One is only in the detention center for a period of time that is hard to predict: Then, the 'transfer.'"⁶⁵ The transfer was the repressors' term for execution. Prisoners were told that most of them would be transferred either to legal prisons, which would be a major step toward freedom, or to rehabilitation camps. This fiction provided but a thin hope of survival, another uncertainty that eroded their condition as humans, because they knew that for most, transfer meant execution. Prisoners did not know when transfers would occur, nor who among them would be transferred. A full facility was dangerous—a prelude to transfer. A heightened presence of intelligence officials who graded the prisoners signaled a transfer within a week or so and exacerbated the level of anxiety. Who would be selected? How would they be killed?⁶⁶

The arrival of special units from outside the center launched the transfer, which culminated in murder and disposal of the bodies in ways designed to continue the regime's plausible deniability and impede future investigations. Many were shot by firing squads or at close range with pistols. Some were shot standing before prepared trenches, as on Loma del Torito outside the La Perla army base in Córdoba; others were later buried in mass graves on bases or in clandestine common graves in cemeteries throughout the country, where their remains, often with hands cut off, would commingle over time, making identification difficult. Corpses were also buried in cemeteries in individual paupers' graves, under the symbol N/N (no name). Some bodies were dynamited, others incinerated. In urban areas, tires were sometimes burned along with the bodies to disguise the smell of burning flesh. In coastal areas, these

methods of killing and disposal were supplemented by the practice of dropping prisoners into the ocean from aircraft. This was the preferred procedure for those held at ESMA. Some had their bellies slit before being ejected to minimize the danger that they might float; they were referred to as "fish food." After bodies washed up on both the Argentine and Uruguayan shores, pilots flew further out into the Atlantic before making the drops. Some transferred prisoners served government propaganda purposes: their corpses were exhibited as dangerous guerrillas shot in "confrontations" or while "trying to escape" so as to corroborate the military's claim that it was continuing to fight a major guerrilla war—the justification for the regime's existence.⁶⁷

Who were the disappeared? CONADEP established the disappearance of 8,960 people; further government investigations have added some four thousand to the list of the documented disappeared. Human rights organizations estimate that thirty thousand were disappeared under the military regime. The exact number of disappeared persons will never be known, but CONADEP's figures provide a profile of the 8,960 originally documented cases that gives a general picture of the demography of disappearance. Seventy percent of the disappeared were men, 30 percent women; 10 percent of the women, or about 270, were pregnant. Three-fourths were between twenty-one and thirty-five years of age; youth between sixteen and twenty accounted for 10.6 percent, while children under sixteen (1.65 percent) and persons over fifty-five (2.58 percent) were not exempt from disappearances. By occupation, 30.2 percent of the disappeared were workers, 21 percent students, 17.9 percent white collar employees, 10.7 percent professionals, 5.7 percent teachers, 3.8 percent housewives, 2.5 percent police and military, 1.6 percent journalists, and 0.3 percent religious professionals. At least a dozen disabled persons, some completely paralyzed, were disappeared. Urban areas, particularly greater Buenos Aires, were most heavily affected, but people disappeared in every corner of the country. La Plata, a university center and the capital of Buenos Aires Province, lost the greatest proportion of its youth of any part of the country.⁶⁸

CONADEP also established the chronology of the disappearances among the 8,960 victims it identified. The first year to surpass one hundred was 1975, when some 350 persons disappeared. The coup year of 1976 was the peak, with nearly 4,200 disappearances, followed by 1977 with over 3,200. In 1978, just over one thousand disappeared. The last year to top one hundred was 1979, with 225, but disappearances occurred in small numbers through the regime's end.⁶⁹ As in Chile, the greatest number of atrocities occurred in the period immediately after the coup. Unlike Chile, where some of the human rights violations were attributable to high emotional states of hatred and a lust for revenge, disappearances in Argentina from the beginning were

calculated, planned, and executed on government orders. State terrorism was institutionalized from the moment of the coup.

A State of Fear

Although disappearances peaked in 1976–1977, the intense sense of terror they produced remained. The military had deliberately created a climate of extreme fear in order to secure and extend its control. As a naval officer said, "if we exterminate them all [the subversives], there'll be fear for several generations."⁷⁰ Fear explains people's passivity in the face of violence, as in the abduction of Susana Barros from Buenos Aires bus 128 in broad daylight. Rather than protesting or resisting, passengers and the driver averted their gaze as the young woman was hauled away to ESMA; passively, they continued to their destinations. Commenting on the behavior of her friends, a rural woman complimented the military's effectiveness in instilling fear: "The military taught them well: Fear us, fear each other, fear yourselves."⁷¹ Said a woman who lost a child, "Fear is a jail without bars."⁷²

State terrorism was so effective in Argentina because initially no institutions opposed it, and society at large feared, denied, and even justified it, leaving the affected individuals and families helpless and isolated. Particularly in the first couple of years, most parents and spouses did not understand that the government itself was conducting the disappearances. The methods of abduction; the absence of records and bodies; and government explanations about subversives going underground, going into exile, or being killed by other terrorists made it impossible for them to see their situation in clear focus. Thus they filed reports with the authorities and made the rounds of police stations, hospitals, military bases, ministries, and morgues searching for their lost ones. The standard government response to their inquiries was that the missing were "persons who are not recorded as detained."⁷³

Beyond that fruitless exercise, they were paralyzed and neutralized by the sheer terror of knowing that they were completely at the mercy of forces they did not understand, but which held absolute power over their loved one, the rest of their family, their friends, and themselves. And the repressors did everything to enhance the pervasive sense of their omnipotence and impunity, and hence fear. They singled out very prominent persons, including former congressmen, a diplomat, and a newspaper publisher, for murder or disappearance in order to promote the "general understanding that nothing and no one could alter the course of predetermined events."⁷⁴

Many Argentines sought refuge in denial: "We knew but we didn't know"—a sentiment expressed by ordinary Germans about the removal of